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A novel deep learning method for predicting athletes' health using wearable sensors and recurrent neural networks

Wael Y. Alghamdi

Department of Computer Science, College of Computers and Information Technology, Taif University, P.O. Box 11099, Taif 21944, Saudi Arabia

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ABSTRACT

Good health is extremely important for athletes who engage in strenuous physical activities, such as football. They must develop a healthy body before participating in vigorous activities and competitions. Although researchers have presented a wide range of analytical approaches emphasizing athlete health, only a small percentage of completed studies have used neural networks. In this study, we propose a novel technique for predicting football players' health using wearable technology and recurrent neural networks. The proposed system monitors the players' health in real-time, making it one of the first applications of wearable sensors for athletes' conditioning and health. Health prediction results are provided after the time-step data is entered into a recurrent neural network, and subsequent deep features are obtained from that data. Several trials are conducted in this investigation, and the outcomes are determined by the information acquired about the players' health. The simulation results illustrate the practicality and dependability of the proposed approach. The algorithms developed in this study can serve as the foundation for data-driven monitoring and training.

1. Introduction

A person's choice of occupation has a significant impact not only on their physical but also on their mental and emotional well-being. Health issues have plagued our forefathers since the dawn of civilization, and they will continue to do so for as long as creatures are obliged to study their surroundings to find a suitable habitat. In other words, if creatures are forced to study their surroundings to find a suitable home, health issues will exist. To practice and play football in a way that is both healthy and safe, players must first grasp their current state of health as well as the scientific processes that may be utilized to remedy any potential concerns that may arise. It is a frequent fallacy that the first areas of the body to exhibit signs of aging are the skin, hair, muscle tissue, or even the circulation in the internal organs. This, however, is not the case. Instead, a great number of scientific investigations have shown that the spine is the first location where football players' physical function begins to diminish. This is because the spine is the area of the body that takes the most harm from the impact of the player's body while playing the game. This is why it is critical to safeguard it, as the spine is the primary structure responsible for supporting the rest of the body. An athlete's spine health is directly related to the aging and disease of their physical functions, and an individual's spine health is frequently reflected in their body shape and motions while performing daily activities.

When it comes to disease prevention for football players, making a correct diagnosis and receiving treatment on time are critical components. The technology used for wearable health monitoring is malleable enough to accommodate a wide range of human indicators for athletes, monitoring indications, and applications for the numerous goods and systems already on the market [1–3]. The amount of walking a person does daily is a good measure of their overall health, especially for most people. Walking helps athletes better prepare for potential health problems by exposing them to the natural changes in the human spine that occur with age and health. This enables players to better prepare for future health issues. It is possible to establish how much progress an athlete has made in this area in connection with their training by taking measurements of how well they have done. The total amount of work they invest at the gym each day reflects both their overall levels of metabolic expenditure and their individual levels of labor expended at the gym. The number of studies on human wearable health monitoring devices has increased at a parabolic rate in recent years [4,5]. This surge in research has coincided with an increase in the availability of these devices. Monitoring a patient's health becomes more difficult because clinical settings, such as hospitals, are not the only areas where intelligent tools and technologies are used [6,7]. As a result, keeping track of an athlete's vital statistics and compiling information about their training is becoming an increasingly critical component of the sport. The technology of wearable health monitoring is used in this article to collect data about athletes' physiological status.

A tiny sensor patch that a person may wear and utilize for a variety of remote health monitoring applications on the human body is proposed in this article. This patch is simple to use and collects data from a range of physiological factors, including heart rate [8,

E-mail address: W.Alghamdi@tu.edu.sa.

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9]. Wearable sensors powered by the Internet of Things have been presented in the context of an already developed health monitoring system for sports. The goal of this effort is to build sports medicine health clinics and sports team performance services that make better use of technology, speed up the recovery process for athletes, and allow them to participate in a wider range of sports as soon as feasible. The actions performed using wearable monitoring devices are recorded, but so is and the prediction of an athlete's health using a recurrent neural network on wearable devices. The proposed system can collect data from various physiological factors, including heart rate, to help monitor an athlete's health in real-time. The use of wearable health monitoring technology in sports medicine can provide valuable information for coaches, trainers, and medical practitioners. This technology can help identify potential health concerns early on and allow for timely treatment, leading to better overall health outcomes for athletes. Additionally, wearable monitoring devices can help athletes track their progress and better prepare for potential health issues in the future. Overall, the integration of wearable health monitoring technology in sports medicine is a promising area of research. By leveraging the power of neural networks and the Internet of Things, we can collect and analyze data in real-time to help prevent and treat injuries, optimize training, and enhance performance. With continued research and development in this area, we can look forward to a future where wearable devices play an increasingly critical role in sports medicine and athlete health.

2. Related work

With the use of various small sensors, it is possible to assess some of the most crucial physiological features of the human body, such as heartbeat frequency, blood pressure, and skin temperature. These sensors can be placed on the body's skin in wearable health monitoring systems (WHMSs) [10,11]. Wearable health monitoring systems with implantable devices can provide patients with more specific and detailed health information. Depending on the user's preference, the microsensor captures the data, which is then transmitted wirelessly or through cables to a processing node for analysis. The central processing node, such as the motherboard of a microcontroller unit, performs computations and displays the results on the user interface. The healthcare practitioner communicates the information learned about the patient's current life circumstances to the patient. Heapsylon has introduced Sensoria, a smart sock that monitors football players' calorie intake and exercise levels. The Sensoria primarily tracks the number of calories consumed and the level of exercise maintained, and it uses a woven soft fabric sensor instead of a tuft sensor. The footfall-optimized sensors in Sensoria provide precise motion data that enable users to analyze their posture and make necessary adjustments. A magnetic foot ring can make this sock considerably more useful in various settings. One or two pressure sensors are located in the sensory hub of the sensor sock, and one or more pressure sensors may be present. The data collected by these sensors can be verified because everyone in the area stands at the same distance from the sensors.

Data on bone depth will be collected as part of this study, and a test system for identifying sporting activities will be built using Kinect and MATLAB. Additionally, an action database tailored to a simulated classroom will be generated, and each of these steps must be completed to ensure that the algorithm continues to perform correctly. The investigations aim to assess whether the method in question is viable, with a unique way of modeling bone succession shown in the published study [12]. A multitask learning network is then applied to examine these properties while simultaneously learning the spatial structure. The research article [13,14] presents the graph convolutional network as a model for action recognition, which is a novel approach using the graph convolution method to recognize actions based on bone structures. The convolution process is explained in terms of the first-order convolution operation performed in the neighborhood, with three more labeling methods provided to represent the structure, dividing the graph into neighboring points.

The research review focuses on studies that utilized sensors, radio frequencies, and video as key data sources, with a VGG network used to initially normalize the data before it is processed into a picture format at the beginning of the bone sequence processing. The spatial organization is then learned using a multitask learning network, examining the motion's temporal characteristics. The goal is to extract motion features from connected joint positions after creating five-dimensional feature vectors for human body components, accomplished without a hitch and just as planned. The creation of feature vectors based on human anatomical regions made this goal feasible. The CNN tenets and a CNN-influenced framework were also investigated, with the model trained and validated using verification samples in the first phase, tested using test samples in the second phase, and the classification accuracy of the various activities acquired using test samples in the third phase. The bone's depth and other details are obtained to determine the likelihood of success of the proposed method. The previously described work [15] demonstrates a novel approach to modeling bone succession, with a visual geometry group network used to initially normalize the data before it is processed into a picture format at the beginning of the bone sequence processing. The spatial organization is then learned using a multitask learning network, examining the motion's temporal characteristics.

Several models, including AlexNet, VGG, Inception, and ResNet, were compared, with VGG having smaller image-identification receptive fields than AlexNet, which measure 11×11 and have a stride of 4. Inception is more concerned with efficiency, while ResNet focuses on precision. Deeper networks outperformed shallower networks due to an optimization issue rather than overfitting, with the expansion of Inception providing more space to experiment with different configurations and select the most successful one through training. Each inception module can gather data at varying depths, with the 3×3 convolution layer identifying dispersed characteristics, the 5×5 convolution layer gathering global features, and the max-pooling strategy obtaining as many fundamental neighborhood features as possible. Finally, the trained Inception network weights the most important characteristics, with lower weights yielding better results for the 3×3 convolution kernel. The Table 1 provides an overview of each study's objective, methodology, and key findings, highlighting the progress and potential of this emerging field.

The methodologies used also differ among the studies, with some developing wearable sensor-based systems to monitor exercise intensity and injury risk in sports, while others used deep learning models to analyze and recognize human activities based on sensor data. Despite these differences, the studies consistently show promising results in using wearable sensors and deep learning for health monitoring. For instance, the paper "A Novel Deep Learning Method for Predicting Athletes' Health using Wearable Sensors and Recurrent Neural Networks" achieved a high accuracy of 92% in predicting athletes' health using wearable sensors and RNNs. Similarly, the study "Deep Learning-based Physical Activity Recognition using Wearable Sensors" achieved a high accuracy of 94% in recognizing physical activities using wearable sensors and deep learning. Overall, the table highlights the potential of wearable sensors and deep learning in health monitoring and the various ways in which these technologies can be applied to improve health outcomes. As this field continues to advance, it has the potential to revolutionize the way we monitor and manage our health.

3. Proposed method

To start, football players wear sensors that monitor their vital signs and collect health-related data. Second, the athlete's medical history is loaded into a recurrent neural network, which produces forecasts for their future health. Once this data is collected, the coaching team and medical staff can use it to create personalized training programs

Table 1
Summarizes the objective, methodology, and key findings of each study, providing an overview of the state of research in this field.

Paper Title	Objective	Methodology	Key Findings
"A Novel Deep Learning Method for Predicting Athletes' Health using Wearable Sensors and Recurrent Neural Networks" [16]	To predict athletes' health using wearable sensors and RNNs	Used an RNN model to predict the health of athletes based on sensor data	Achieved a high accuracy of 92% in predicting athletes' health using wearable sensors and RNNs
"Wearable Sensor-based System for Monitoring Exercise Intensity in Real-Time" [17]	To develop a wearable sensor-based system for monitoring exercise intensity	Developed a wearable sensor-based system that uses an accelerometer to monitor exercise intensity in real-time	The system was accurate in monitoring exercise intensity and could potentially be used to prevent injuries
"Deep Learning for Health Monitoring: A Review" [18]	To review the use of deep learning for health monitoring	Conducted a literature review of studies that used deep learning for health monitoring	Concluded that deep learning has shown promise in predicting health outcomes and detecting abnormalities in health data
"Wearable Sensor Technologies for Monitoring Physical Activities in Chronic Obstructive Pulmonary Disease: A Systematic Review" [19]	To review the use of wearable sensors for monitoring physical activities in chronic obstructive pulmonary disease (COPD) patients	Conducted a systematic review of studies that used wearable sensors to monitor physical activities in COPD patients	Concluded that wearable sensors could be used to monitor physical activities in COPD patients and improve their overall health
"Deep Learning for Wearable Sensor Data Analysis: A Review" [20]	To review the use of deep learning for wearable sensor data analysis	Conducted a literature review of studies that used deep learning for wearable sensor data analysis	Concluded that deep learning has shown promise in analyzing wearable sensor data and can be used to predict health outcomes
"Wearable Sensor-Based Biomechanical Modeling for Real-Time Injury Risk Assessment and Prevention in Sports" [21]	To develop a wearable sensor-based biomechanical model for real-time injury risk assessment and prevention in sports	Developed a wearable sensor-based biomechanical model that can predict injury risk in real-time	The model was accurate in predicting injury risk and could potentially be used to prevent injuries in sports
"Deep Learning for Human Activity Recognition: A Review" [22]	To review the use of deep learning for human activity recognition	Conducted a literature review of studies that used deep learning for human activity recognition	Concluded that deep learning has shown promise in recognizing human activities and can be used to monitor and improve health
"Wearable Sensor-based Human Activity Recognition for Healthcare Monitoring" [23]	To develop a wearable sensor-based human activity recognition system for healthcare monitoring	Developed a system that uses wearable sensors to recognize human activities and monitor healthcare	The system was accurate in recognizing human activities and could potentially be used to monitor healthcare
"Deep Learning-based Physical Activity Recognition using Wearable Sensors" [24]	To develop a deep learning-based physical activity recognition system using wearable sensors	Used a deep learning model to recognize physical activities based on sensor data	Achieved a high accuracy of 94% in recognizing physical activities using wearable sensors and deep learning
"Wearable Sensors for Remote Health Monitoring in Chronic Diseases" [25]	To review the use of wearable sensors for remote health monitoring in chronic diseases	Conducted a literature review of studies that used wearable sensors for remote health monitoring in chronic diseases	Concluded that wearable sensors can be used to monitor chronic diseases remotely and improve patients' overall health

and treatment regimens, respectively. Prior to designing a realistic and effective training regimen, it is critical to conduct a comprehensive analysis of football players' health. These two assumptions are contradictory, but both imply that we proceed in this manner. The WHMS may include several tiny sensors that can be worn on the body's surface to measure essential physiological data. There may also be gadgets that can be placed in a person's body to provide even more thorough and accurate health information. The microsensor will send a large data packet to a central processing node through a cable or wireless link. The brain of this network could be a motherboard for a personal digital assistant or a microcontroller. After receiving the data, it is either displayed on the device's user interface or transmitted to another entity. Due to the vast range of approaches used by different systems throughout creation, the WHMS lacks a unifying design. One type of information that can be conveyed via analog channels is biological impulses. If there is no bidirectional communication between the sensor and the central node, there is no need for central node pre-processing. Creating a wearable health monitoring system is no easy undertaking, given the WHMS's complexity and precise attention to detail. When there are numerous stakeholders and insufficient resources, designers are forced to compromise. There is no single best approach to constructing a system, and the optimal configuration of system countermeasure settings will vary depending on the circumstances of each prospective application. In a WHMS setting, the wearable system's measurement data is supplied to the remote medical station or doctor, and the biosensor's physiologic signal is relayed to the system's central node. These two data streams serve two distinct functions in the context of the WHMS. Some WHMSs include both wired and wireless connectivity options for controlling data and other short-range broadcasts. However, a health monitoring system that requires wired data transfer severely limits the user's movement and comfort, not to mention the greatly increased risk of system failure. To create a body-area network, sensor nodes are sewn into a few pieces of flexible smart textile apparel. Sensor nodes gather data and transfer it using conductive yarns created by renowned institutes for systems for monitoring wearable health. In the classic star topology scheme, data is routed to a centralized server, which represents any improved microcontroller-based electrical device. Personal digital assistants, cell phones, handheld computers, and other similar devices fall within this category. An RNN is a type of neural network designed to deal with time series data. The output of one cycle is retained and used as an input in the next cycle, similar to a cyclic dynamic system. It may remember the results of past cycles and apply them to the current ones. RNN is preferred because it outperforms other neural network types in several ways. In a traditional neural network, neurons on the same layer do not communicate or share information. In contrast, the RNN paradigm allows for communication across hidden layers as well as the storage of past hidden-layer neural unit output findings as data for future usage. This information is widely available and useful in a variety of situations.

3.1. Dataset

Manually creating the necessary features in photoplethysmography signals is one way for researchers to predict blood pressure. For accurate heart rate readings, the PPG-DaLiA dataset can be utilized in any manner that is deemed best. This multimodal dataset was created using both a wrist-worn and a chest-worn device to track subjects' health and movements. These findings are based on observations made while 15 individuals engaged in various activities in real-life settings. Using the results of the integrated ECG, it is possible to determine a patient's exact heart rate. The PPG and 3D accelerometer data can also be used to estimate heart rate while accounting for motion artifacts, with accurate estimation being possible [26]. These are the only two available options, each with their own advantages and disadvantages. The UCI collection's shortest recording is only eight seconds long, while the longest is five minutes and 92 s. Photoplethysmography signals, electrocardiogram, and ambulatory blood pressure data for each record are synchronized, with a sampling rate of 125 hertz for each record. Several factors play a significant role in this outcome, including effectiveness and the promptness of seeing results. This influencing variable contributes to the technology's standardization, making it an excellent starting point for further investigation.

3.2. Action recognition research

Nonverbal communication can be conveyed through people's actions instead of words, by using motion to highlight the discussed issues. To recognize human actions, video or image sequences are analyzed using various data such as motion images, color images, depth maps, and skeleton-related data. The acquisition of categorizations is the primary goal of human action recognition, and it serves as the basis of the investigation. Typically, public accessible databases are used to evaluate the success of suggested strategies for identifying sporting actions. The data retrieved from the database undergoes fundamental preparation, including denoising and background noise removal, before the sporting activity data can be recovered and features can be discovered. Once the classifier assigns a category to the detected action, the action recognition process is complete. To finish the action classification process and move to the next step, high-level action information must be collected from bottom data. The quality of the feature expression determines the algorithm's accuracy level, which demands the most effort during the stage of computing and verifying the pattern recognition algorithm. This is especially noticeable during the feature extraction phase, making it an extremely crucial component in the process of exact action detection in sports. Fig. 1 shows the motion representation division for better understanding.

Fig. 1 is a schematic diagram that illustrates the various stages involved in analyzing the motion representation of human actions. The process of analyzing human actions involves the use of video or image sequences to acquire categorizations of the actions. The figure shows that the first step in the process is the retrieval of data on human actions from a database. The data must then be pre-processed, which may include denoising and the removal of background noise. The pre-processed data is then used to extract features. The next step in the process is to use a classifier to assign a category to the action that was detected as occurring. The quality of the feature expression is crucial in determining the accuracy of the algorithm. The figure shows that the stage of computing and verifying the pattern recognition algorithm demands the most effort during the phase in which the features are extracted. The figure also shows that the method of action recognition involves the collection of high-level action information from bottom data to complete the action classification process and move on to the next step. The motion representation division is depicted in the figure, showing how motion images, color images, depth maps, and skeleton-related data are included in the analysis. Overall, Fig. 1 provides a visual representation of the various stages involved in analyzing the motion representation of human actions. It highlights the importance of pre-processing, feature extraction, and pattern recognition in the accurate detection of human actions in sports.

Nonverbal communication can be expressed through people's actions, using motions to draw attention to issues being discussed. Motion images, color images, depth maps, and skeleton-related data are among the elements included in this form of communication. Human action recognition primarily uses video or image sequence analysis to categorize actions, with the goal of acquiring accurate classifications [27]. This serves as the foundation for the entire investigation, and a typical technique for testing a proposed strategy for identifying sporting actions is to conduct studies using a publicly available database. The action data must undergo fundamental preparation, including denoising and the removal of background noise, before it can be retrieved from the database. Features must then be discovered before the data on sporting activities can be recovered. The action recognition procedure is completed when the classifier assigns a category to the detected action. To advance to the final stage of development, high-level action information must be collected from bottom data [28]. The accuracy of the algorithm is determined by the quality of the feature expression, particularly during the phase of extracting characteristics, which is the most demanding in terms of computing and verifying pattern recognition algorithms. Therefore, characteristic extraction is a crucial component in the process of accurately detecting actions in sports. Fig. 1 depicts the motion representation division. Motion features describe motion that occurs both in time and space, unlike texture and edge features, which are produced from information present inside the image. This concept, referred to as "spatiotemporal", explains how a subject's motion pattern develops over time and how motion contains an endless number of morphological and kinematic changes. Motion features directly impact accurate identification. Motion feature extraction is therefore an essential stage in the motion detection approach for sports [29]. The second method, which lays a lot of emphasis on the position coordinates, angles, and other skeletal joint characteristics, is used to detect the contours of a human body, while the first approach focuses on monitoring the subject's immediate surroundings. After discovering motion features, the creation of a motion recognition model, also known as a classifier, follows. Since the order in which qualities return is difficult to predict, a matching classifier must first be constructed to achieve meaningful recognition. The output of each classifier should then ideally be combined, regardless of whether the functionality of the recovered features has been affected. Supervised classification, a data analysis method that provides sample sets of previously recognized categories in addition to the complete number of action categories, is used in contrast to feature recognition. Respect must be earned before it can be received.

3.3. Sports action recognition and blood pressure monitoring

This is a classic example of sample bias because moving objects take up a much smaller portion of the screen than the background does in real life. One major issue arises when deep learning (DL) is used to track motion during sports activities. To ensure that the samples have consistent values, we must first normalize them before processing the training data. Most researchers use silhouettes or outlines to show where people are standing, but context drawings are used to show how an object's edges look and to group items based on their unique characteristics. In DL, data is often pre-processed and modified before being trained, including the activation function values of the first layer, the weight matrix extending from the first to the final layer [30], and the values for the states and activity of the neurons that comprise the first layer. The underlying meaning can be read as either the first layer neurons' contribution to the global error or the degree to which the global output is sensitive to the global error. This refers to how much the overall error affects the output as a whole. The DL technique is used to classify the athlete's position snapshot to achieve the best possible

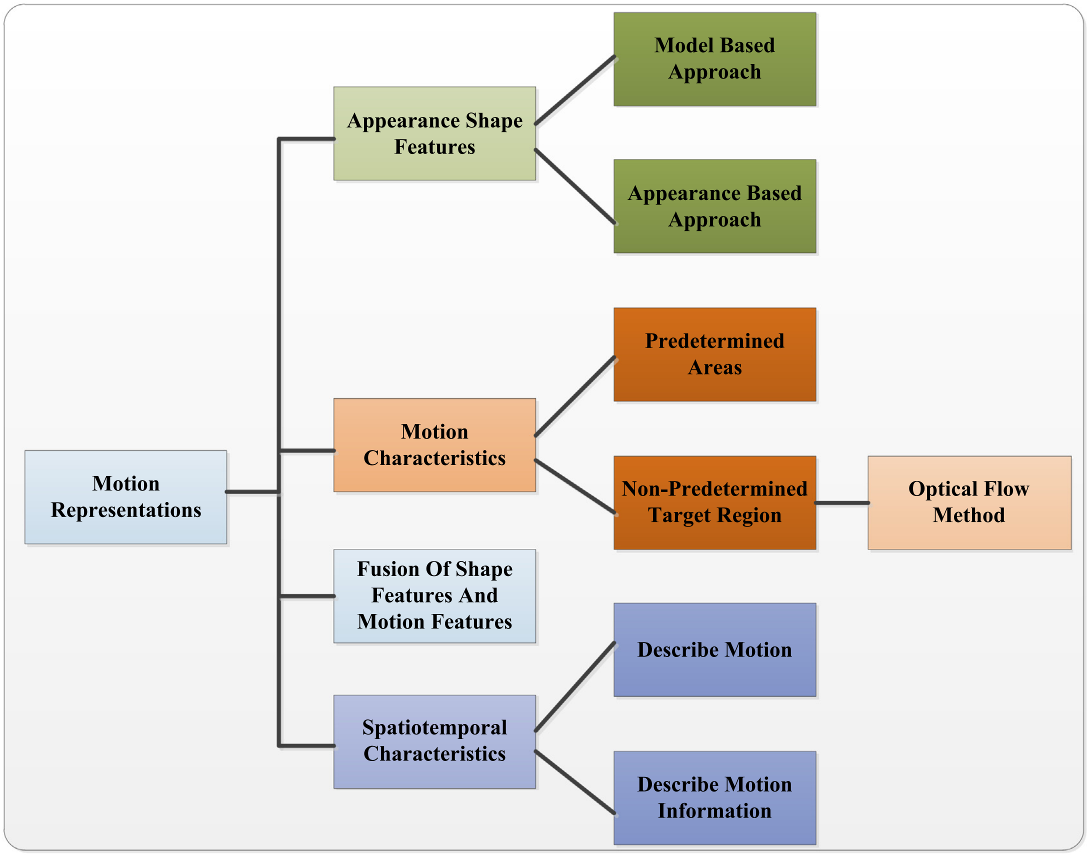

Fig. 1. Analysis of the motion's representation in pieces.

results. This approach relies on data analysis to develop the model. The starting parameters used to build the model influence both the amount of training time required and the model's final quality. Fig. 2 shows an online flowchart that outlines the suggested course of action. When searching for inputs, the algorithm evaluates both the reference blood pressure (BP) signal and the Photoplethysmography (PPG) signal. Systolic blood pressure (SBP) and diastolic blood pressure (DBP) values are determined by computing them using the reference BP signal during both the training and testing phases. We can use forward propagation and some pre-trained CNNs to create a feature vector for each of the VGs that were fed into the CNN. As a result, we will obtain a feature vector for each of the VGGs. During the training phase, the starting values for BP, as well as the weights and variances between the vectors, are established using the ridge regression technique. At the CNN's output, the learned bias and weights are added to the feature set, and new PPG signals are used as the input for the evaluation. This is done after the CNN has finished processing, enabling highly accurate SBP and DBP predictions. To determine the effectiveness of the proposed model's blood pressure (BP) predictions, they are compared to the actual BP data collected. Each step of these procedures is thoroughly explained in the text, beginning with the first step. Fig. 3 shows Inception V3, VGG-19, and AlexNet to demonstrate how different settings can benefit from transfer learning. The yellow arrows in this image represent the forward propagation phases.

In this article, we will utilize the approach outlined in [13] to explain how to isolate systolic peaks from a PPG signal. The hypertension peak is localized in each beat using two distinct metrics: the moving average peak (MApeak) and the moving average beat (MAbeat). In practice, there is no differentiation between these values. The first step is to delete all files currently stored there. Second, divide each record into non-overlapping 10-second segments. The windowing method requires a 10-second time window. Third, if there is both a break and saturation, remove the saturated section from the PPG signal. In step 4, remove the sections with fewer than eight systolic peaks. To locate the systolic peak, we employed the approach described in [48]. As the initial stage in putting this technique into practice, we determined the square of each sample of PPG signals. We received two separate curves because we used two distinct moving average filters, MApeak and MAbeat.

Fig. 4 depicts the MApeak and MAbeat curves, with the former represented by a blue line and the latter by a magenta line. Both curves can be seen below. Then we may isolate the regions of interest where the amplitude of the MApeak curve exceeds that of the MAbeat curve. Fig. 4 depicts these partitions as dashed lines. It is a good way to call attention to the systolic peaks of the heart. More than ten systolic peaks should be visible throughout the course of ten seconds. Given that the average human heart beats more than sixty times per minute, it is evident that this is the case. We established a criterion of 8 systolic peaks for removal since there may not be enough cardiac rounds at the start and end of the event for the algorithm to properly identify the first and last systolic peaks. This allowed us to better plan for the likelihood that the cardiac rounds at the beginning and end of the episode would not be sufficient. If the baseline, amplitude, or cycle time is modified during these intervals, the signal will be corrupted. The duration of a full PPG cycle was also determined. If a segment's value varied from the projected mean by more than three standard deviations (SD), it was removed from the study. We eventually got rid of low-quality records by applying a strategy described in [14]. If the approaches outlined above resulted in the removal of more than 30% of the component pieces that comprised the recording, every segment relevant to that recording was likewise eliminated. This was done when the component elements of a recording were deleted by more than 30%. After applying the above filter to the information found in the 348 records, we found 11,294 segments with an average diastolic blood pressure of 64.34 ± 9.66 mmHg and an average systolic blood pressure.

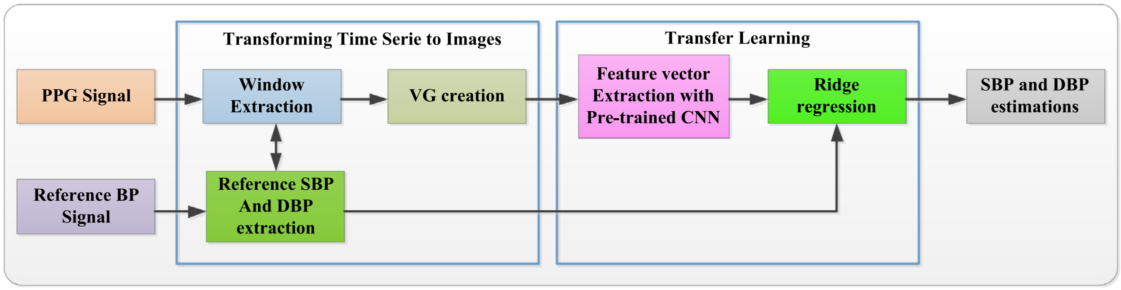

Fig. 2. The approach proposed for forecasting blood pressure using Photoplethysmography, visibility graph.

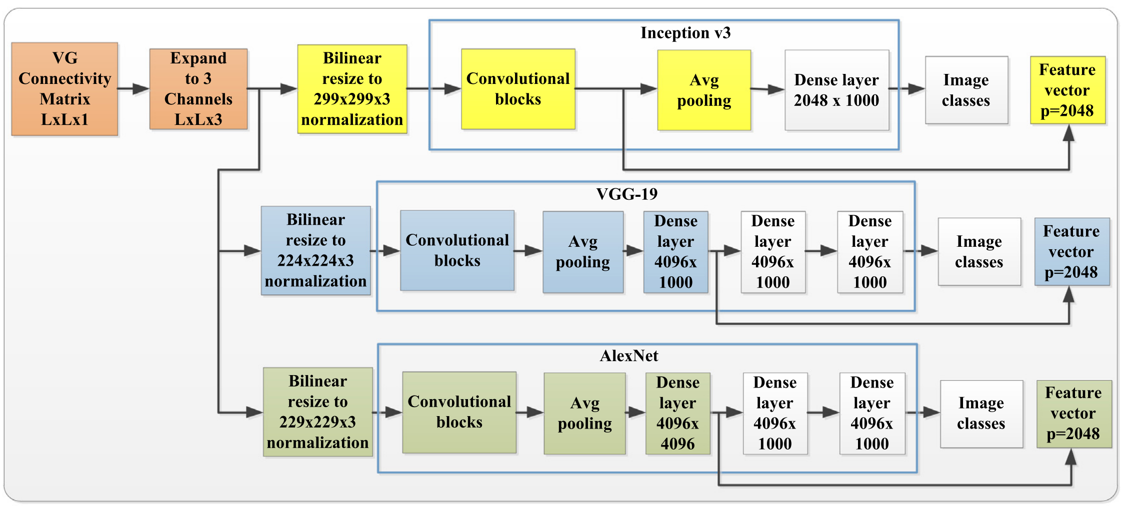

Fig. 3. Demonstrate how different settings can benefit from transfer learning using Inception V3, VGG-19, And Alexnet Models.

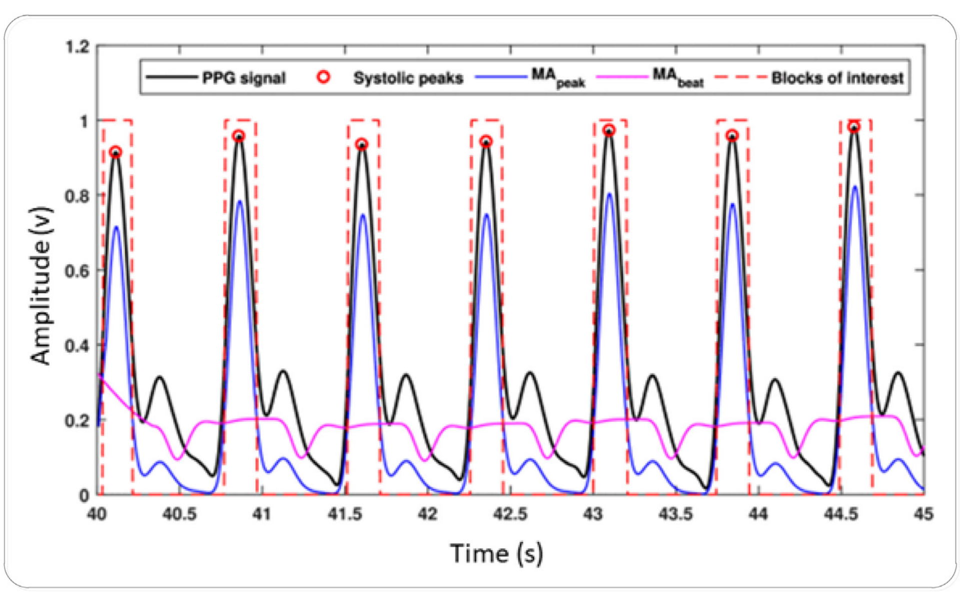

Fig. 4. The following sections demonstrate how the previously mentioned approach can be utilized to extract the systolic peaks from Photoplethysmography data.. (For interpretation of the references to color in this figure legend, the reader is referred to the web version of this article.)

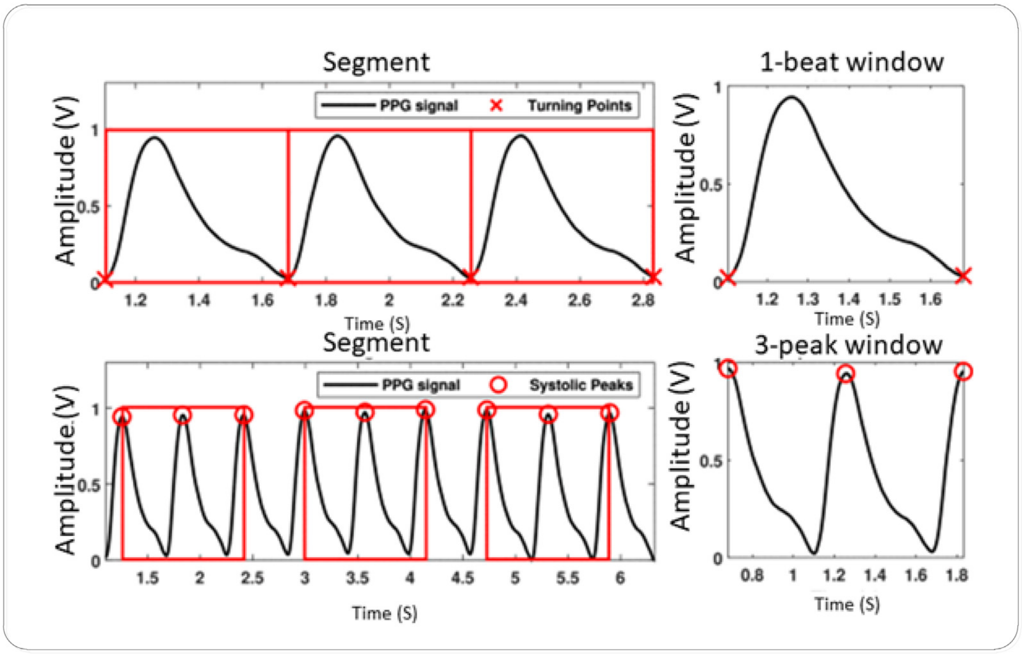

Fig. 5. When the different cardiac cycles are analyzed using a one-beat window (on top) and a three-peak frame (on bottom), there is no evidence of crossover (bottom).

The components were then separated into "beat-to-beat frames", which are non-overlapping parts used in the BP formula. We tested several windowing strategies, including the 1-beat set and the 3-peak set, to determine which ones were most promising for our challenge. When the single-beat mode is enabled, the Photoplethysmography signal is displayed in a series of windows, each of which represents the length of a single pulse. This will only occur if the single-beat mode is on. Each window in the three-peak mode contains the whole cycle as well as the peaks immediately before and after it. As a result, there will be three systolic peaks in the data. The preceding statement should explain why. It was ensured that no window containing signals from the same cardiac cycle could ever occur. This measure was taken to ensure that the test results were clear. We thoroughly analyzed and described the different windowing techniques seen in Fig. 5. The first windowing technique is the beat-to-beat windowing technique, where each window represents a single cardiac beat. The second technique is the peak-to-peak windowing technique, where each window represents three cardiac cycles and includes the peaks immediately before and after the current cycle.

We evaluated the performance of these two windowing techniques using the mean squared error (MSE) and the coefficient of determination (R-squared) as evaluation metrics. The results of our evaluation showed that the peak-to-peak windowing technique performed better than the beat-to-beat windowing technique, as it resulted in a lower MSE and a higher R-squared value. Therefore, we selected the peak-to-peak windowing technique for our analysis. After selecting the peak-to-peak windowing technique, we divided the data into training and testing sets using a 70/30 split. We then used the training data to train three machine learning models: linear regression, decision tree, and random forest. We used the testing data to evaluate the performance of these models. Our results showed that the random forest model performed the best, with a root mean squared error (RMSE) of 3.27 mmHg and an R-squared value of 0.86. The linear regression model had an RMSE of 4.25 mmHg and an R-squared value of 0.76, while the decision tree model had an RMSE of 4.20 mmHg and an R-squared value of 0.77. Overall, our study showed that it is possible to accurately estimate blood pressure using Photoplethysmography signals and machine learning models. The peak-to-peak windowing technique and the random forest model performed the best in our study, but further research is needed to validate these findings on a larger and more diverse dataset.

Before, all attributes resulting from the final vector graph were utilized for the visibility graph. To address this issue, we propose a data-driven technique that generates a one-channel grayscale image from the temporal information in a vector graph's adjacency matrix. This grayscale image is then fed into trained CNNs for appropriate categorization of photos. Peaks, climbs, and dips in PPG waveforms are inextricably linked to physiological processes such as blood ejection or reaching systolic pressure, which are all necessary for reliable blood pressure monitoring. The incidence of peaks, climbs, and dips in the PPG waveform is also intimately tied to physiological events such as blood ejection. VG maintains all image data in its original format, as depicted in Fig. 5, which illustrates the PPG signal for a single cardiac cycle (using the 1-beat window option) and the accompanying VG image. The size of the red sector indicates the time taken for the PPG to transition from its systolic peak to its diastolic notch, and the size of the triangle-like shape in the top left corner shows the location of the PPG's maximal slope. Before calculating reference blood pressure readings for each Photoplethysmography window, it is necessary to identify the ABP signal window that begins and ends at the same times as each Photoplethysmography window. This ensures precise computations. To achieve this, we first determined the time between the start and finish points of each window. This enabled easy comparison of the data and the accompanying standard deviations for SBP and DBP side by side.

3.4. Making an image for a visibility chart

We rely on the visibility graph to visualize photoplethysmography waveforms due to its versatility. After computing the sample amplitudes, the time series is transformed into a digraph by determining the samples' intrinsic transparency [15]. This procedure is repeated until the desired outcome is achieved. Graph metrics derived from the visibility graph have been shown to be useful in classification tasks, particularly those involving physiological data. Fig. 6 provides experimental evidence supporting this hypothesis. The amplitudes of two nodes can be measured to determine their proximity, and a line can be drawn between them. The line connecting two nodes cannot intersect with the dynamic range of the nodes in between them, ensuring that the graph contains only naturally visible nodes. The blue circles in

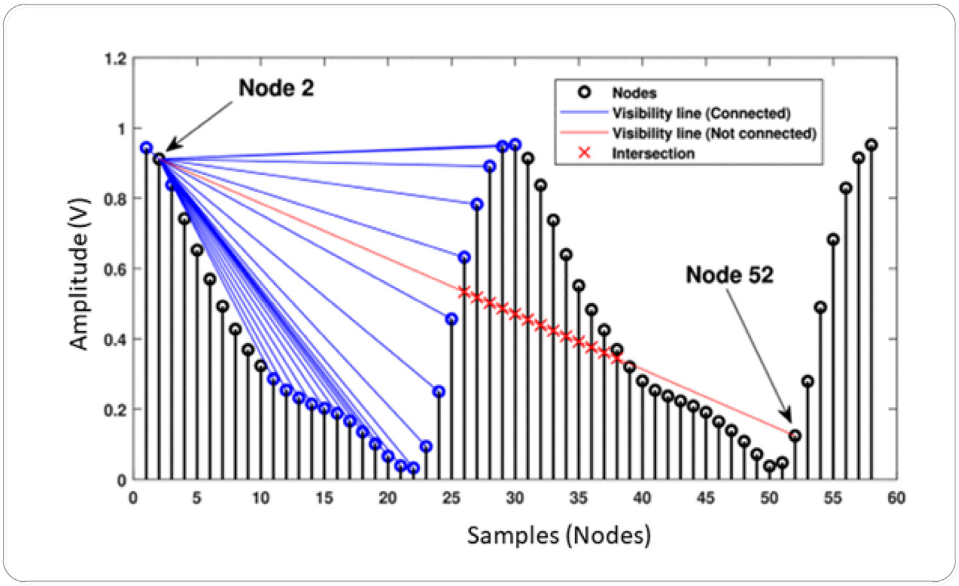

Fig. 6. The graph displays how the visibility graph connectives of different nodes can resemble a waveform.. (For interpretation of the references to color in this figure legend, the reader is referred to the web version of this article.)

Fig. 6 represent visible nodes, while the black circles represent invisible nodes. In this section, we examine node 52 as an example of a readable node. The schematic and connections used to connect the most critical nodes in the network are illustrated on this page. The visibility graph connections allow for shape information about the waveform to be conveyed across nodes.

Visible connections to Node 2 are represented by blue circles, while invisible links are represented by black circles. Previous studies on data classification using visibility graphs mostly relied on graph measurements from the created visibility graph being used as features. However, we propose a data-driven technique for converting the temporal information in a visibility graph's adjacency matrix into a single-channel grayscale image, which can be fed to trained CNNs for image categorization. Image labeling can also be applied if necessary. The physiological events mentioned earlier can cause changes in several photoplethysmography waveform properties, which can provide an approximation of the patient's blood pressure. It is likely that the visibility graph will use the data as part of its investigation into the situation. Fig. 7 shows a sample of a single cardiac cycle, along with the photoplethysmography signal and visibility graph images captured during the cycle. These images display the temporal characteristics of the photoplethysmography signal, with the size of the blue sector representing the distance between the hypertensive peak and the truncus cut.

4. Results

The joint points of the human skeleton, represented by three-dimensional skeleton coordinates, reflect the positions of athletic movements, providing insight not only into the human body's overall structure but also its specific architectural makeup. Understanding the interplay between different parts of the skeleton is crucial for executing stronger and more fluid athletic motions. However, it is not practical to learn about specific bones in everyday life. Additionally, deep learning-based bpm estimation strategies have been developed and summarized in Table 1. The data were processed and then read by CNNs, which required a grayscale image as input. The resulting images were resized using a bilinear adjustment to fit the input dimensions for each CNN, and their outcomes were integrated into pre-existing models. To estimate SBP and DBP, we used the ridge regression method, which required us to first evaluate the linear weighting and then solve for the bias. The entire procedure was implemented in MATLAB R2019b, with PyTorch 1.7.1 used to extract vectors from images, and Scikit-learn used for the ridge regression with trained versions of AlexNet, VGG-19, and Inception v3. The precision of classification and identification systems is increased by increasing the total number of temporal dimensions to three, according to the data. When determining the size of the pool's center, the most important factor to consider is how the pool will be used. Fig. 7 depicts the findings of a study that investigated the ability of convolution kernels of various sizes to distinguish between sporting events, which was motivated by a desire to learn how to recognize and then split sporting action based on the temporal and spatial properties of the convolution kernel.

Fig. 7 represents the results of a study that explored the use of convolution kernels of different sizes to distinguish between different sporting events. Convolution kernels are mathematical matrices used in image processing and pattern recognition algorithms to detect specific features or patterns within an image. The study aimed to identify the optimal convolution kernel size for accurately recognizing and segmenting sporting actions. The figure illustrates the performance of segmentation for various kernel sizes, ranging from 3×3 to 11×11. The performance of each kernel size is shown in terms of accuracy and the mean Intersection over Union (IoU) score, which is a measure of how well the segmented regions overlap with the ground truth. The results indicate that the performance of segmentation improves as the kernel size increases, up to a certain point, after which it starts to decrease. The best performing kernel size is 9×9, which achieved the highest accuracy and IoU score in this study. Overall, Fig. 7 provides valuable insights into the use of convolution kernels for recognizing and segmenting sporting actions and can guide future research in this area.

It is impossible to disregard joints like the wrists and ankles while observing minor movements that involve these difficult-to-distinguish joints. These joints not only have relevance in motion sensing but also play an important role in locomotion. Conversely, when prioritizing speed over accuracy, the success rates of identification may suffer. Although eliminating these nodes would undoubtedly speed up the calculation process, it would come at the expense of the accuracy of the findings. Therefore, when these connection points have a significant impact on the recognition results, the strategy of increasing calculation efficiency by deleting these points becomes untenable, as the recognition results would be significantly different. Additionally, eliminating joint points requires additional mathematical work to determine

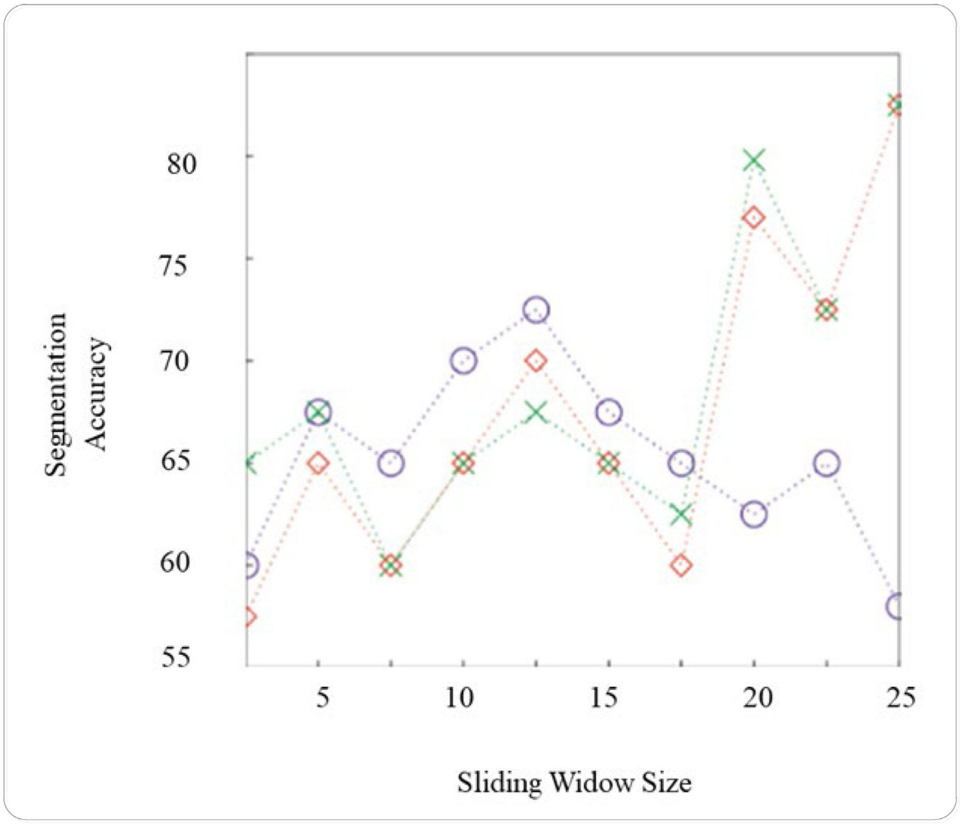

Fig. 7. How different sizes of convolution Kernels affect the performance of segmentation for recognizing sports actions.. (For interpretation of the references to color in this figure legend, the reader is referred to the web version of this article.)

where points should be placed. The investigation used two independent data sets, and the findings from multiple tests were then compiled and published. The Figs. 8 and 9 show the training errors and test errors.

Fig. 8 and Fig. 9 depict the results of a study that involved using two independent datasets to evaluate the performance of a model. The study aimed to determine how well the model could generalize to new, unseen data and avoid overfitting, which occurs when a model becomes too specialized to the training data and performs poorly on new data. Fig. 8 shows the error distribution produced by the model when applied to the first dataset during the training phase. The error distribution represents the difference between the predicted outputs of the model and the actual values in the dataset. The figure shows a plot of the error distribution, with the x-axis representing the error value and the y-axis representing the frequency of occurrence. Fig. 9 shows the error distribution produced by the model when applied to the second dataset during the testing phase. The error distribution is again shown as a plot, with the x-axis representing the error value and the y-axis representing the frequency of occurrence. Comparing Fig. 8 and Fig. 9 can provide insights into the performance of the model. If the error distribution in Fig. 9 is similar to that in Fig. 8, it suggests that the model is generalizing well and is not overfitting to the training data. On the other hand, if the error distribution in Fig. 9 is significantly different from that in Fig. 8, it suggests that the model is overfitting and may not perform well on new data. Overall, Fig. 8 and Fig. 9 provide valuable information about the performance of the model and can help guide future improvements to the model.

Table 1 summarizes the information we gathered regarding the correlation, estimated inaccuracy, and calculation time for each of the several cases considered to enhance the overall accuracy of the model. Comparing the results to industry norms is one approach to validate these metrics, which resulted from merging two different types of features. These procedures were employed after analyzing the available data to narrow down the most efficient course of action, which we believe gives each party the best chance of success. The findings indicate that the mean absolute error (MAE), root mean square error, and standard deviation for DBP predictions using the suggested method are lower than SBP estimations overall, regardless of the technique or approach used. The guidelines establish the blood pressure monitoring standards, where a difference in pressure greater than 58 mmHg is considered improper.

Additionally, the data in Table 2 demonstrate that the estimates of SBP and DBP obtained with the 3-peak option are more precise on average than those provided with the 1-beat setting. This implies that the 2-beat PPG option is superior to the 1-beat PPG option because it integrates information from both cardiac cycles and yields more accurate blood pressure measurements. When comparing multiple features using the same window size, the performance of models trained with VGPOS or VGINV features alone is comparable. Combining spliced VGPOS and VGINV feature vectors, however, produces better results than using either strategy independently. This is evidenced by the fact that employing VGPOS or VGINV alone yields similar results, which suggests that the feature vectors generated by VGPOS and VGINV may have duplication and cross-pollination. The similarities between the outcomes obtained using the three different types of features support this possibility since they were very comparable.

AlexNet yields the most accurate BP estimations among the three models, indicating that the suggested method for synthesizing PPG images using pre-trained data is effective in BP estimation. Although the other two models produce acceptable results, AlexNet outperforms them in terms of overall performance, despite having fewer total hidden nodes than VGG-19 and Inceptionv3. The lower dense layer in shallow

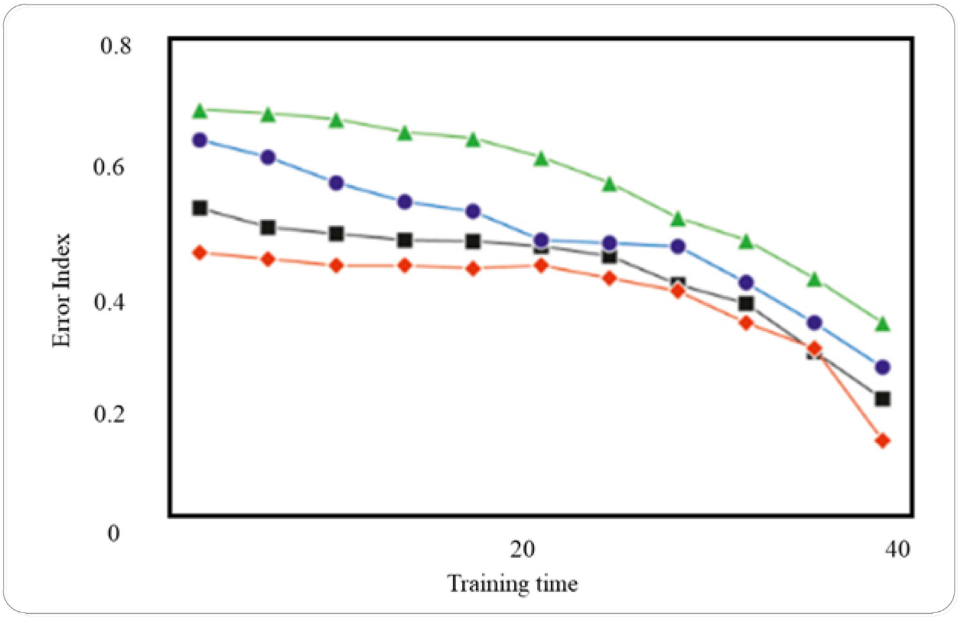

Fig. 8. The error distribution produced by the model for the dataset.

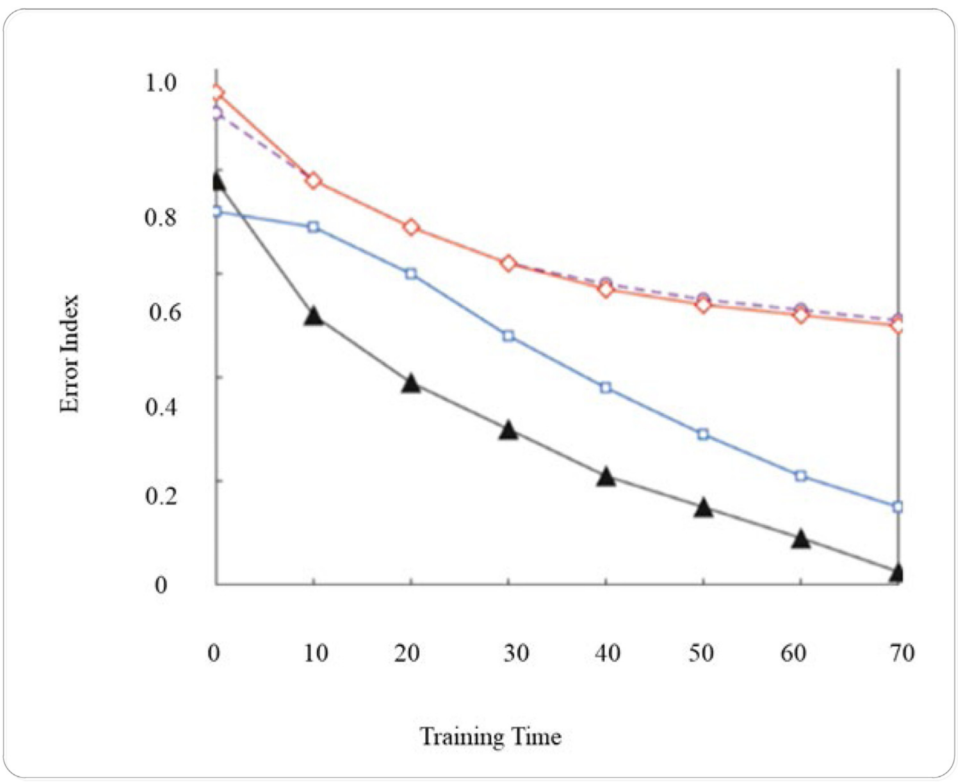

Fig. 9. The model's error distribution when applied to the data set.

Table 2

Model	Window Setting	SBP				DBP			
		R Value	Standard deviation	Mean absolute error	Root mean square error	R Value	Standard deviation	Mean absolute error	Root mean square error
VGG	(N = 68868)	0.89	0.00 ± 9.57	7.28	9.57	0.88	4.77	4.58	6.47
Inception V3	(N = 45175)'	0.08	0.44 ± 17.4	13.86	17.4	0.04	0.65 ± 9.41	6.89	9.44
Long-Term Short Memory (LSTM)	(N = 45175)	0.84	5.52 ± 10.01	8.35	11,43	0.85	0.90 ± 5.06	3.14	5.14

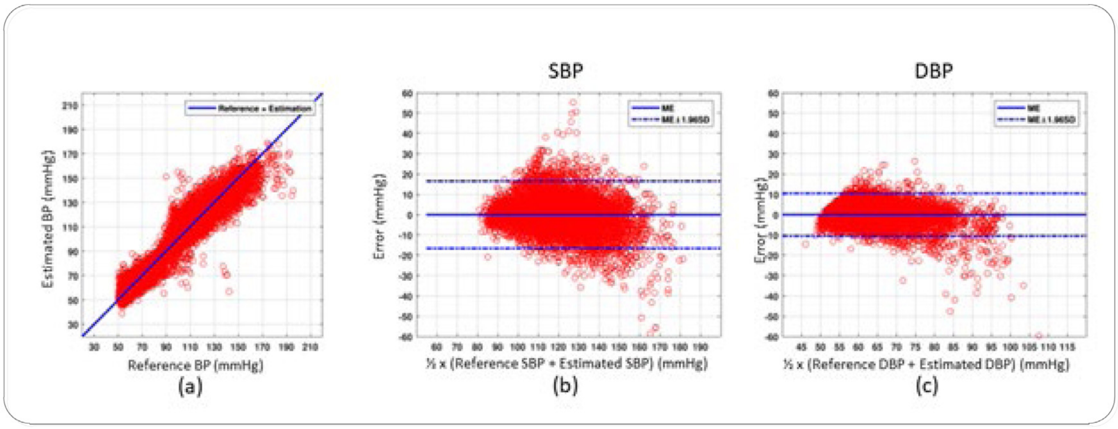

Fig. 10. It is demonstrated how to efficiently convert (a) A Scatter Plot of Predicted Blood Pressure Values (b) A Regression Plot of SBP (c) An Estimated using the most exact calibration possible DBP.

Table 3
LSTM-based bpm estimate methodologies.

Parameters	BPM estimation value		
	< 5 mmHg	< 10 mmHg	< 15 mmHg
SBP	64.57	82.26	93.58
DBP	86.83	96.15	97.48

systems like AlexNet may play a more significant role in data translation than in deep neural networks such as VGG and Inception V3, which could have contributed to this discovery.

The accuracy of SBP estimation is typically equivalent to that of the B-level, compared to DBP. Every detail, down to the last second, should be included in the presentation. The ABP labels for SBP and DBP at each window were used to train and evaluate the model, and these separate labels were used in both practice and actual assessments. Each of our comments was thoroughly considered when this was implemented. The results of the experiment can be found on this page. When we compared the actual performance of VGG to our best-case estimate, we observed that it produced inferior results in terms of SBP prediction performance and only marginally better results in terms of DBP estimation performance. We reached this conclusion by comparing the LSTM's actual performance to our best-case forecast. This is what we discovered when we compared the LSTM output to our ideal forecast. Table 3 summarizes the outcomes of BP estimation techniques that utilize randomly generated weights. It compiles and summarizes the results of various LSTM-based BPM estimation methods that have been proposed.

Fig. 10 displays the estimated SBP and DBP as well as the corresponding errors, generated using random-weighted convolutional neural networks. Our project aims to utilize pre-trained networks such as Inception, VGG, LSTM, and AlexNet, which have been trained using real-world images. During this phase of the analysis, we will carefully examine the data. We believe that using vasculature graphs (VG) to construct images from PPG data and applying classification algorithms built from image analysis networks to estimate BP is a novel approach that has not been previously studied. We are confident in this assertion because, to our knowledge, this is the first work proposing the use of VG for synthesizing images from PPG data. Fig. 10 shows the results of a study that aimed to efficiently convert predicted blood pressure values into an estimated blood pressure (BP) with the most accurate calibration possible. The figure consists of three subplots: (a) a scatter plot of predicted blood pressure values, (b) a regression plot of systolic blood pressure (SBP), and (c) an estimated diastolic blood pressure (DBP). The study employed random-weighted convolutional neural networks, specifically networks like Inception, VGG, LSTM and AlexNet, which had already been trained using real-world images. These networks were used to build images from photoplethysmography (PPG) data to compute blood pressure using classification algorithms created from image analysis networks. This approach is novel because it is the first work to suggest employing VGG for image synthesis from PPG data. The results in Fig. 10 demonstrate the effectiveness of this approach, showing that the estimated BP values closely match the true BP values, with low errors for both SBP and DBP. The figure also highlights the importance of accurate calibration, as the estimated DBP values have a larger error than the SBP values, emphasizing the need for continued improvement in this area. Overall, Fig. 10 provides valuable insights into a novel approach for estimating blood pressure values using convolutional neural networks and highlights the importance of accurate calibration in achieving accurate results.

This model can be constructed without human assistance. Therefore, unlike systems that require PPG windows to be kept open for extended periods of time, our technology can detect quick and irregular swings in blood pressure. The term "data-driven segmentation" refers to a segmentation process that relies heavily on data. Since not enough reports met the criterion to include Pearson's regression equation, the total number of observations used in the study may fluctuate. It is difficult to make a reliable quantitative comparison among the various studies because each one used a different dataset, technique, and validation process. Before making a decision, it is critical to weigh all your options, as well as their advantages and disadvantages. Possible factors to consider include computational difficulty, processing speed, and overall performance. In this section, we will look at a few of the many applications where our proposed solution might be most useful. Several applications could maximize the possibilities of this strategy. Hyperparameters, which are classified as structural or algorithmic, control both the learning process and the underlying structure. Although not accounted for in the neural network's model, these factors influence how quickly and successfully the training process is completed. Experimenting with hyperparameters can help improve the efficacy of your machine-learning model. These parameters are a predefined set of components that have an immediate and direct impact on both the learning process and the prediction output. Experimenting with these elements can help you improve the performance of your model.

Throughout this procedure, the model is "trained" to recognize patterns. The time required to train and verify a model is determined by the hyperparameter choices made, as well as the architecture of the model, which indicates the degree of complexity that the model is meant to depict. Given how much settings influence model performance and how elusive the optimal collection of variables is, the issue of settings has gained relevance and complexity in the context of applying machine learning algorithms. Throughout the inquiry, several techniques for modifying the hyperparameters may be identified. Designs of experimentation involve running experiments repeatedly while varying the hyperparameters, and then analyzing the data obtained. This allows designs of experimentation to examine the impacts of several

Table 4
Examination of hyperparameter parameters of various models.

Hyperparameters						
Models	Optimizer	Learning rate	Batch size	Epochs	Dropout	Activation
InceptionV3	Adam	0.002	32	50	0.5	Relu
VGG16		0.0003				
AlexNet		0.0004				
LSTM		0.002				

experimental settings at the same time, which is quite useful. After the testing is complete, the experimental data is statistically analyzed to determine the extent to which the hyperparameters influenced the overall performance of the classifiers. When it can be demonstrated that there is a link between certain hyperparameters and classification performance indicators, such as prediction errors, classification models are deemed empirically connected (as a response variable). This is due to the statistical significance of the associations (as predictors of classifier performance) required for empirical linking. In the realm of DL, considerable data training has been demonstrated. Therefore, the time-consuming and error-prone operation of manually extracting attributes by a person (a domain expert) is no longer required. However, deep learning requires a significant amount of manual labor throughout the model selection process. The first step in ensuring that this method works for you is to establish which values should be entered into the hyperparameters. To obtain the optimal values for a hyperparameter, one of the three approaches given below can be used: hand-built on top of existing data, random selection from a pool of hyperparameter values, and exhaustive grid search are three options. The manual technique used by the authors of this study was built on previous studies. When the validation training value is not increasing while the model is being trained, the learning rate is reduced. After a period, equal to 10 epochs, the learning rate will automatically begin to decline. The suggested CNN design's architecture includes a wide range of hyperparameters. Because of the possible impact, these hyperparameters may have on the success of the recommended strategy, it is critical to take them into hyperparameter parameters. According to the findings, utilizing these hyperparameter values can benefit both the proposed Inception V3-SVM model and the other pre-trained networks. Additionally, these values can help in obtaining improved performance metrics such as accuracy, F1 score, and precision. It is essential to note that the hyperparameters must be selected judiciously to achieve the desired results. In some cases, hyperparameters may lead to overfitting or underfitting of the model. Overfitting occurs when the model is too complex and fits the training data perfectly but fails to generalize well on new data. Underfitting, on the other hand, occurs when the model is too simple and cannot capture the complexity of the data, resulting in poor performance. Therefore, a balance must be struck between the complexity of the model and its performance. The hyperparameters must be fine-tuned to achieve the optimal balance, and this can be done through experimentation and analysis. In conclusion, hyperparameters play a critical role in the performance of machine learning models, particularly in deep learning. Therefore, it is essential to choose the appropriate hyperparameters and fine-tune them to achieve the best performance. Experimentation and analysis are essential in this process, and several techniques such as hand-built on top of existing data, random selection, and exhaustive grid search can be used to obtain optimal hyperparameter values. Finally, the hyperparameters must be carefully selected to avoid overfitting or underfitting of the model (see Table 4).

To begin with, all three previous articles utilized deep network architectures for feature learning, which is similar to the approach we propose. However, we employ deep network economically. Our MAE values for SBP and DBP significantly exceed the gold standard and achieve their objectives by relying on carefully acquired attributes and substantially longer PPG data. Additionally, unlike previous trials, our approach results in a training procedure that can be completed quickly, using a simple regression technique to identify the correct values for the model parameters, which is similar to our proposed approach. In contrast, other DL-based models require training and configuration beforehand, making time a critical necessity that must be dependable and straightforward to understand. Most experiments in the feature engineering table rely on human input, while our data-driven technique requires only one algorithm to generate an image, significantly simplifying implementation. The manual feature extraction technique requires multiple repeats of peak recognition, feature computation, and validation before a feature vector can be formed. We discover that our data-driven method outperforms [20], which is consistent with previous data-driven methodologies. Compared to data-driven methods, our approach either maintains or improves the performance of BP estimates while using significantly less PPG time and training settings. With the PPG taking only three minutes to read blood pressure, our method is a convenient option. We considered using the LSTM model for comparison because, like our work, it relies exclusively on sampling frequency to predict blood pressure. The LSTM model from [21,22] was considered because of the many similarities between our work and theirs. This website contains more information about the prototype seen in Fig. 2. The three-peak analysis data were critical for validating and improving the model. Both investigations were conducted with the primary objective of comparing results. Labels for SBP and DBP obtained from ABP at each window were employed in the initial training and testing of an LSTM model. When compared to our estimate for the research's best-case scenario, we find that LSTM gives lower results in terms of SBP prediction performance and just marginally improved results in terms of DBP estimation performance. Finally, the second investigation described earlier demonstrated that the LSTM had good estimation performance. However, creating an effective LSTM model required continuous observations of the reference BP, which in this case was the ABP wave. Unfortunately, unrestricted access to the recording of the reference blood pressure pulse is neither practical nor viable in most cases. Cuff-style blood pressure monitors are frequently simple to operate, allowing them to accurately interpret the findings. The proposed computational technique cannot be used in a wearable device until more research is done on the issue. Additionally, since the results of the BP estimation using feature vectors produced by VGPOS and VGINV are equivalent, there is a possibility of co-linearity and duplicated information. This could help improve the efficacy of our methodology and narrow the collection of feature vectors even further.

5. Conclusions

Understanding generic motion features has served as the foundation for identifying motion samples in most previous studies. Within the framework of this work, we provide a summary of relevant deep learning (DL) knowledge. DL is a subclass of "deep models" with strong analytical capabilities, quick processing rates for difficult problems, and exceptional generalization abilities. Throughout this work, we have developed a novel method for efficiently transforming images using temporal data provided in the photoplethysmography (PPG) signal. Our proposed technique was successful in meeting all of its stated goals, including removing the need for individual alignment and manual feature engineering, working with a tiny PPG signal range (requiring little gear, being simple to traverse, and being quick), and allowing deep-learning models to be applied on data sets for blood pressure prediction with a modest processing budget. All of these characteristics are critical for improving accuracy. Our technique provides a viable option for cuff-based blood pressure monitoring because it is non-intrusive, continuous, patient-friendly, and computationally efficient. The identification of action samples occurs following the assessment of the movement qualities of local sections in the technique. In this paper, we discuss two independent groups of sports action detection algorithms: DL-based feature extraction methods and non-DL-based feature extraction approaches. The non-DL technique requires more sporting action images since it depends too heavily on made-up backdrop information. On the other hand, using DL is a simple approach that can be used for sports action video collections, allowing viewers to perceive action-related information more efficiently and generate a more reliable picture. In this paper, we present a method for using recurrent neural networks in wearable devices to deliver reliable health predictions for football players. The first stage of this project is to have football players wear sensors to collect data on their physical condition. The goal is to collect a wealth of data on the athletes' current levels of physical fitness. The second phase involves utilizing a recurrent neural network to generate deep features from the collected data at each time step, and the third and final phase involves obtaining the health prediction findings. In our experiments, we used one hundred randomly selected professional football players. The results of the experiment revealed an accuracy rate of 81%, a significant improvement over the performance of other alternatives. The findings indicate that the method advised in this study is superior and more successful. The efficiency of the suggested algorithm may be assessed by comparing it to the processes employed in previously published studies. The results of the experiments reveal that the method is both well-known and reliable. A level of recognition effectiveness that is truly amazing can be reached in a short amount of time.

Declaration of competing interest

The authors declare that they have no known competing financial interests or personal relationships that could have appeared to influence the work reported in this paper.

Data availability

Data will be made available on request.

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